

COMPLEXITY AND RECURRENCES

Algorithmic Performance and Mathematical Analysis

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Course Outline

1 Introduction to Complexity Analysis

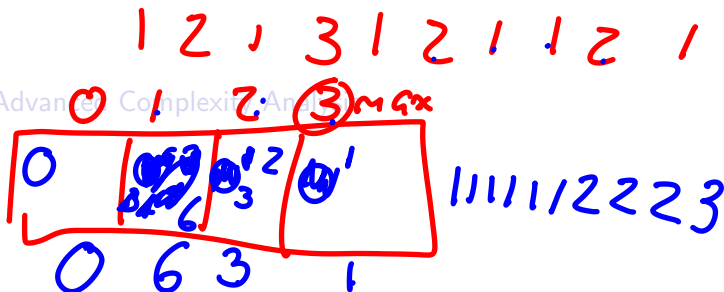
2 Advanced Complexity Analysis



Outline

1 Introduction to Complexity Analysis

2 Advanced Complexity Analysis



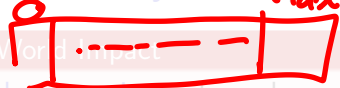
Why Analyze Algorithms?

The Fundamental Question

Given multiple algorithms that solve the same problem, which one should we choose?

Counting Sort $\rightarrow$ repetitions

① Max $\rightarrow$ number of list

②  $\rightarrow$ len = max + 1

③ for ∇ in numbers:
result[i] += 1

④ print result[i] $\rightarrow$ i.

Why Analyze Algorithms?

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Given multiple algorithms that solve the same problem, **which one should we choose?**

- **Performance:** How fast does the algorithm run?
- **Resources:** How much memory does it use?
- **Scalability:** How does it handle large inputs?
- **Predictability:** Can we predict its behavior?

contest

Real World Impact

Condor

- User experience depends on algorithm speed
- Server costs increase with inefficient algorithms
- Mobile apps drain battery with poor algorithms
- Scientific computing requires efficient solutions



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Elementary Operations Identification I

Definition

An **elementary operation** is a basic computation that takes constant time regardless of input size.

Common Elementary Operations:

• Assignment: `x = y`

• Arithmetic: `+`, `-`, `*`, `/`

• Comparison: `<`, `>`, `==`, `!=`

• Array access: `array[i]`

• Simple built-in functions

time → processor



Elementary Operations Identification I

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Common Elementary Operations:

① step

- **Assignment:** $x = 5$
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- **Comparison:** $==$, $<$, $>$
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- **Function Calls:** Simple built-in functions



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① each one

$x + y - z \Rightarrow 2 \text{ steps}$



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- **Function Calls:** Simple built-in functions] (v) call
↳ sum inner steps



Elementary Operations Identification II

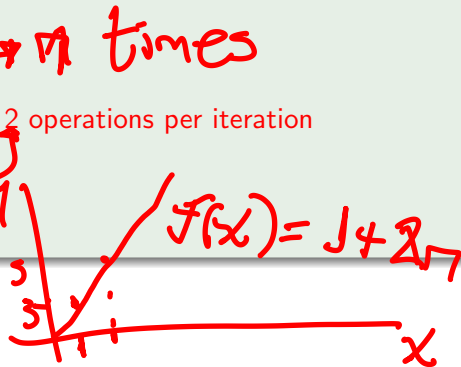
Example

Count operations in simple code:

```

1:  $sum = 0$  // 1 operation
2: for  $i = 0$  to  $n - 1$  do
3:    $sum = sum + array[i]$  // 2 operations per iteration
4: end for
  
```

Total: $1 + 2n$ operations

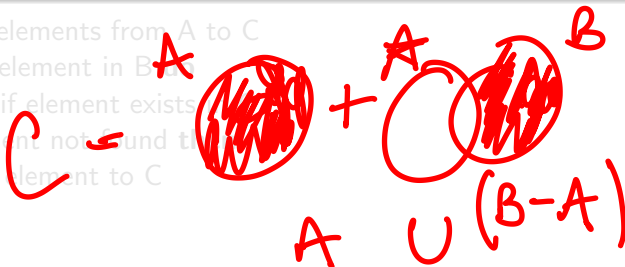


Study Case: Counting Operations in Arrays Union I

Problem

Given two arrays A and B, create array C that contains all elements from both arrays without duplicates.

- 1: Copy all elements from A to C
- 2: **for** each element in B
- 3: Check if element exists
- 4: **if** element not found then
- 5: Add element to C
- 6: **end if**
- 7: **end for**



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- 6: **end if**
- 7: **end for**

$C[i] = A[i]$
 $\text{len}(A) \rightarrow 2$
 $\text{len}(B) = 1$

$\boxed{3}$

∇



Study Case: Counting Operations in Arrays Union II

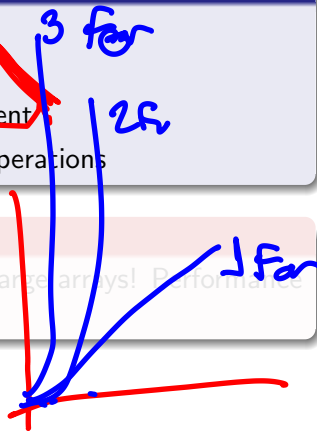
Operation Analysis

- Copy from A: n operations
- For each element in B: m iterations
- Search in C: Up to n comparisons per element
- Total worst case: $n + m \cdot n = n(1 + m)$ operations

Key Insight

The nested search makes this algorithm slow for large arrays! Performance grows quadratically.

↓ for ∇^1
 2 for ∇^2
 3 for ∇^3



Study Case: Counting Operations in Arrays Union II

Operation Analysis

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Best, Average, Worst Case Scenarios

Three Perspectives on Algorithm Performance

Different inputs can lead to dramatically different execution times for the same algorithm.

Best Case

- Minimum operations
- Most favorable input
- Example: Finding element at first position

Average Case

- Expected performance
- Typical input
- Example: Finding element in middle

Worst Case

- Maximum operations
- Least favorable input
- Example: Element not found



Best, Average, Worst Case Scenarios

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→ sort → sorted array

binary → element middle

/lined

Average Case

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binary → random
 sort → 50%
 random
 linear



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- Example: Element not found

sort → sorted reverse

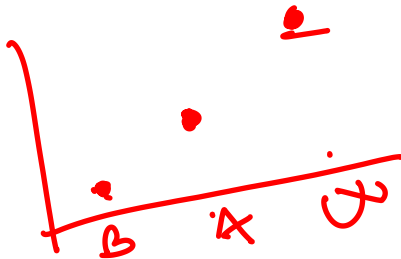


Best, Average, Worst Case Scenarios II

Example

Search in array [5, 2, 8, 1, 9]:

- **Best:** Search for 5 $\rightarrow$ 1 comparison
- **Average:** Random element $\rightarrow \sim 2.5$ comparisons
- **Worst:** Search for 7 (not found) $\rightarrow$ 5 comparisons



Performance Prediction Methods

Approaches to Predict Algorithm Performance

- 1 **Theoretical Analysis:** Mathematical analysis
- 2 Empirical Analysis: Timing actual executions
- 3 Simulation: Testing with synthetic data
- 4 Profiling: Detailed runtime analysis



Performance Prediction Methods

Approaches to Predict Algorithm Performance

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> correlation



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time



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Performance Prediction Methods II

Theoretical Analysis

Advantages:

- Machine-independent
- Covers all possible inputs
- Mathematical precision

Limitations:

- Ignores implementation details
- May not reflect real hardware

Empirical Analysis

Advantages:

- Reflects real performance
- Shows actual constants
- Platform-specific results

Limitations:

- Machine-dependent
- Limited input cases
- Time-consuming

Best Practice

Use theoretical analysis for algorithm design, then validate with empirical testing.

GPU/Quadcore

i.e. $\rightarrow$ 200 minutes

steps

$f(n) \rightarrow n = 10$

100
1000

$t \approx 100,000,000$

Performance Prediction Methods II

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Time vs. Space Trade-offs

security vs speed

Definition

A time-space trade-off occurs when we can reduce time by using more memory, or reduce memory at the cost of increased time.

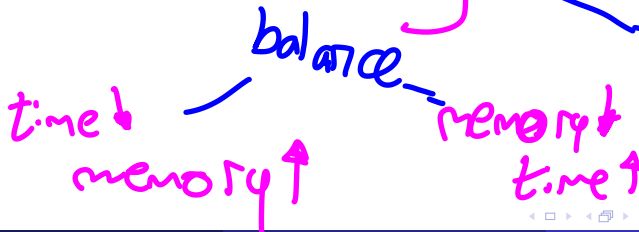
Trade-off Decision Factors:

- Available memory constraints
- Time requirements
- Cost of computation vs. storage
- Frequency of algorithm execution

time $\sim$ processor

space $\sim$ memory

constraint



Time vs. Space Trade-offs I

Definition

A **time-space trade-off** occurs when we can **reduce time** by using more memory, or **reduce memory** at the cost of increased time.

Trade-off Decision Factors:

- Available memory constraints ?
- Time requirements ?
- Cost of computation vs. storage /
- Frequency of algorithm execution

} → 500 ms
~ 1 ms } 4s

real-world



Time vs. Space Trade-offs II

Example

Fibonacci Calculation:

Space-Efficient (Recursive):

- Uses minimal extra memory
- But recalculates same values repeatedly
- Very slow for large numbers

Time-Efficient (Memoization): →

- Stores previously calculated values
- Uses more memory
- Much faster for large numbers

vectorization



Systematic Complexity Calculation Methods I

Step-by-Step Approach

- ① **Identify:** All loops and recursive calls
- ② **Count:** Operations in each section
- ③ **Multiply:** Operations by execution frequency
- ④ **Sum:** All contributions
- ⑤ **Simplify:** Focus on dominant terms



Systematic Complexity Calculation Methods II

Example

Nested Loop Analysis:

```
1: for  $i = 0$  to  $n - 1$  do  
2:   for  $j = 0$  to  $n - 1$  do  
3:      $result = array[i] + array[j]$   
4:   end for  
5: end for
```

Operation Count:

- Outer loop runs n times
- Inner loop runs n times for each outer iteration
- Total operations: $n * n = n^2$ operations



Study Case: Complexity Calculation for QuickSort I

QuickSort Algorithm Structure

- 1: Choose a **pivot** element
- 2: **Partition** array around pivot
- 3: Recursively sort **left** part
- 4: Recursively sort **right** part

Partition Operation

- **Compare** each element with pivot
- **Rearrange** elements (smaller left, larger right)
- This takes **n operations** for n elements



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Study Case: Complexity Calculation for QuickSort II

Best Case

- Pivot divides array **in half**
- **Balanced** partitions
- **Fast** performance

Worst Case

- Pivot is always **smallest/largest**
- **Unbalanced** partitions
- **Slow** performance



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Big O Notation: Definition and Meaning

Definition

Big O notation describes the **upper bound** of an algorithm's **growth rate** for large inputs.

What Big O Tells Us:

- How algorithm performance **scales** with input size
- **Worst-case** growth rate
- Ignores **constant factors** and smaller terms
- Focuses on **dominant behavior** for large inputs



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Big O Notation: Classifications

Common Big O Classifications:

- $O(1)$ — **Constant**: Always same time
- $O(n)$ — **Linear**: Time grows with input size
- $O(n^2)$ — **Quadratic**: Time grows with square of input
- $O(\log n)$ — **Logarithmic**: Very efficient growth

Key Insight

Big O focuses on **asymptotic behavior** — how algorithms **scale** with very large inputs.



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Upper Bound Concept and Mathematical Definition

Understanding Upper Bounds

An **upper bound** guarantees that an algorithm will **never perform worse** than the bound.

Big O Meaning:

- Sets a **ceiling** on performance
- Guarantees **maximum time**
- Used for **worst-case** analysis
- Helps **compare** algorithms

Common Growth Orders:

- $O(1)$ — **Constant**
- $O(\log n)$ — **Logarithmic**
- $O(n)$ — **Linear**
- $O(n \log n)$ — **Linearithmic**
- $O(n^2)$ — **Quadratic**
- $O(2^n)$ — **Exponential**



Study Case: First Letter in a Sentence Complexity

Problem

Find the **first alphabetical letter** in a given sentence string.

```
1: for each character in sentence do  
2:   if character is a letter then  
3:     return character  
4:   end if  
5: end for  
6: return null
```

Best: First character is a letter

- Only check 1 character
- Constant time: $O(1)$

Worst: No letters in sentence

- Check every character
- Linear time: $O(n)$

Even though best case is $O(1)$, we report $O(n)$ because Big O represents the **worst-case upper bound**.

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Study Case: Linear Search Algorithm Complexity

Problem

Search for a **target element** in an **unsorted** array.

```
1: for each element in array do  
2:   if element equals target then  
3:     return index  
4:   end if  
5: end for  
6: return -1
```

- **Best Case:** Element at first position, 1 comparison $\rightarrow O(1)$
- **Worst Case:** Element not in array, n comparisons $\rightarrow O(n)$
- **Average Case:** Element in middle, $n/2$ comparisons $\rightarrow O(n)$



Study Case: Linear Search Algorithm Complexity

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```

- **Best Case:** Element at **first position**, 1 comparison $\rightarrow O(1)$
- **Worst Case:** Element **not in array**, n comparisons $\rightarrow O(n)$
- **Average Case:** Element in **middle**, $n/2$ comparisons $\rightarrow O(n)$



Study Case: Binary Search Algorithm Complexity I

Problem

Search for a target element in a **sorted** array.

```
1: while search space not empty do  
2:   Find middle element  
3:   if middle equals target then  
4:     return index  
5:   else if middle > target then  
6:     search right half  
7:   else  
8:     search left half  
9:   end if  
10: end while  
11: return -1
```



Study Case: Binary Search Algorithm Complexity II

Each step eliminates **half** of the remaining elements:

- Step 1: n elements
- Step 2: $n/2$ elements
- Step 3: $n/4$ elements
- Step k : $n/2^k$ elements

Algorithm stops when we reach **1 element**.



Big Omega (Ω) and Big Theta (Θ) Notations I

Big Omega (Ω)

Lower Bound:

- Minimum time required
- Best-case analysis
- “At least this fast”
- Guarantees algorithm won't be faster

Big Theta (Θ)

Tight Bound:

- Exact growth rate
- Best and worst are same
- “Exactly this fast”
- Most precise description



Big Omega (Ω) and Big Theta (Θ) Notations II

Example

Merge Sort:

- Best case: $\Theta(n \log n)$
- Worst case: $O(n \log n)$
- Since best = worst: $\Theta(n \log n)$

Linear Search:

- Best case: $\Omega(1)$
- Worst case: $O(n)$
- No tight bound (best $\neq$ worst)



Study Case: Tower of Hanoi Problem I

Problem

Move n disks from **source** rod to **destination** rod using **auxiliary** rod. Rules: only move **one disk** at a time, never place **larger disk** on smaller one.

```
1: function Hanoi( $n$ , source, destination, auxiliary)
2: if  $n = 1$  then
3:   move disk from source to destination
4: else
5:   Hanoi( $n - 1$ , source, auxiliary, destination)
6:   move disk from source to destination
7:   Hanoi( $n - 1$ , auxiliary, destination, source)
8: end if
```



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Move n disks from *source* rod to *destination* rod using *auxiliary* rod. Rules: only move *one disk* at a time, never place *larger disk* on smaller one.

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Study Case: Tower of Hanoi Problem II

Recurrence Analysis

- $T(1) = 1$ (**base case**: move one disk)
- $T(n) = 2T(n - 1) + 1$ (**two recursive calls** + one move)

Solution:

- $T(n) = 2^n - 1$
- Complexity: $O(2^n)$ — **exponential!**

Real-World Implication

For 64 disks: $2^{64} - 1 \approx 18$ billion billion moves!



Study Case: Tower of Hanoi Problem II

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Solving Recurrence Relations

Common Solution Methods

- 1 **Substitution Method:** Guess and verify
- 2 **Recursion Tree:** Visualize recursive calls
- 3 **Master Theorem:** Direct formula for common cases
- 4 **Characteristic Equation:** For homogeneous recurrences



Solving Recurrence Relations

Example

Recursion Tree Method for $T(n) = 2T(n/2) + n$:

- Level 0: n work
- Level 1: $2 \times (n/2) = n$ work
- Level 2: $4 \times (n/4) = n$ work
- ...
- Total levels: $\log n$
- Total work: $n \times \log n = O(n \log n)$

Method Selection

- Simple cases: Direct solving
- Divide-and-conquer: Master theorem
- Complex cases: Substitution method

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Method Selection

- **Simple** cases: Direct solving
- **Divide-and-conquer**: Master theorem
- **Complex** cases: Substitution method

Master Theorem Introduction I

Master Theorem

For recurrences of the form $T(n) = aT(n/b) + f(n)$:

Case 1: $f(n)$ grows **slower** than $n^{(\log_b a)}$

- $T(n) = O(n^{(\log_b a)})$

Case 2: $f(n)$ grows at **same rate**

- $T(n) = O(n^{(\log_b a)} \log n)$

Case 3: $f(n)$ grows **faster**

- $T(n) = O(f(n))$



Master Theorem Introduction II

Examples

Merge Sort:

- $T(n) = 2T(n/2) + n$
- $a = 2, b = 2, f(n) = n$
- **Case 2:** $O(n \log n)$

Binary Search:

- $T(n) = T(n/2) + 1$
- $a = 1, b = 2, f(n) = 1$
- **Case 2:** $O(\log n)$

When to Use

Master theorem works for many **divide-and-conquer** algorithms but has **limitations**.



Master Theorem Introduction II

Examples

Merge Sort:

- $T(n) = 2T(n/2) + n$
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- Case 2: $O(\log n)$

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Recursive Algorithm Complexity Calculation I

Systematic Approach

- 1 **Identify:** Base case(s) and recursive case(s)
- 2 **Set up:** Recurrence relation
- 3 **Solve:** Using appropriate method
- 4 **Verify:** Check solution makes sense



Recursive Algorithm Complexity Calculation II

Merge Sort Analysis

Step 1: Identify cases

- **Base:** Array size $1 \rightarrow O(1)$
- **Recursive:** Divide, sort halves, merge

Step 2: Set up recurrence

- $T(n) = 2T(n/2) + O(n)$

Step 3: Solve using Master Theorem

- Case 2: $T(n) = O(n \log n)$

Step 4: Verify

- Makes sense: **logarithmic levels**, **linear work** per level



Summary I

Key Takeaways

- **Complexity Analysis:** Essential for algorithm **comparison** and **selection**
- **Big O Notation:** Describes **growth rate** for large inputs
- **Recursion:** Powerful technique requiring careful **base case** design
- **Recurrence Relations:** Mathematical tools for **recursive algorithm** analysis



Summary II

Practical Skills Gained

- Count operations systematically
- Classify algorithms by growth rate
- Design recursive solutions correctly
- Analyze recursive algorithm complexity
- Apply Master Theorem to common patterns

Next Steps

- Practice complexity analysis on various algorithms
- Implement recursive solutions with proper optimization
- Study advanced recurrence solving techniques
- Apply knowledge to real-world algorithm selection



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- Count **operations** systematically
- **Classify** algorithms by growth rate
- **Design** recursive solutions correctly
- **Analyze** recursive algorithm complexity
- Apply **Master Theorem** to common patterns

Next Steps

- **Practice** complexity analysis on various algorithms
- **Implement** recursive solutions with proper optimization
- Study **advanced** recurrence solving techniques
- **Apply** knowledge to real-world algorithm selection



Outline

- 1 Introduction to Complexity Analysis
- 2 Advanced Complexity Analysis



Thanks!

Questions?



Repo: <https://github.com/EngAndres/ud-public/tree/main/courses/computer-sciences-i>

